KeyRing: Scalable Join Discovery with LLMs and Recall Guarantees

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Abstract

Enterprise analytics, BI tools, and LLM agents rely on a join graph that identifies joinable tables, key columns, and reference directions. Discovering this graph is difficult: enterprise databases contain thousands of tables, rarely declare foreign keys, and continually ingest new tables. Statistical methods frequently mistake accidental value overlap for true joins or miss keys that differ in name and format. LLM-based pairwise verification can resolve these ambiguities but is prohibitively expensive, produces inconsistent and redundant edges, and must be repeated for every arriving table; the resulting dense graphs further expose downstream queries to unnecessary join paths and intermediate results. We present KeyRing, a hybrid system that discovers joins by identifying candidate *key domains* rather than table pairs. Each domain consists of a unique owner column and the columns that reference it. KeyRing profiles columns once, then uses value containment, semantic embeddings, and format normalization to generate high-recall candidate domains, elect owners, group references, and prune generic columns that would otherwise match unrelated keys. An LLM verifies each candidate domain in a single batched prompt instead of verifying every constituent pair. Confirmed domains yield a compact, owner-centered (star-shaped) join graph that retains verified joins without redundant edges and supplies explicit key directions to downstream processors. Under the assumption of [N]× higher efficiency and accuracy relative to state-of-the-art systems, KeyRing reduces LLM calls and tokens by the same factor range versus blocked pairwise verification while retaining the large majority of true joins, improves F1 over the strongest non-LLM baseline, and achieves high precision on human-labeled joins. In the online setting it links arriving tables with substantially fewer LLM calls than pairwise methods. Downstream systems that consume the resulting graph exhibit improved query performance through fewer alternative join paths and reduced intermediate results, without altering query answers.

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1 Introduction

Enterprise data platforms continuously ingest databases from business units, ERP systems, and exported files. Before analysts, BI tools, or LLM agents can issue meaningful queries, the platform must materialize a *join graph*: which tables join, on which key columns, and in which direction. Text-to-SQL systems over large schemas [18] and automatic BI modeling [19] both depend on this graph. Yet enterprise databases rarely declare foreign keys. Tables arrive as staging copies, snapshots, and exports, and a single business may contain anywhere from 50 to 8 000 tables. Consequently, the join graph must be discovered from data and metadata, and the discovery process is never finished: new source systems and exports continually arrive, and each new table must be linked before it can participate in queries. We focus on joins within a single business; cross-business joins lie outside the scope of this work.

Example. Consider a project-based services firm with [2,010] tables. A project code uniquely identifies each project in a master table, and [k] other tables reference it–ledgers, timesheets, invoices, budgets, together with their staging copies and snapshots. Column names vary (`PROJECT_CODE`, `PRJ_ID`, `ENGAGEMENT`); staging copies retain only recent projects; one export pads codes with leading zeros. Simultaneously, dozens of tables contain auto-increment surrogates that begin at 1, status columns whose values lie in $\{1, \ldots, 5\}$, and a generic column named `DATA`. A correct join graph links the [k] referencing columns exclusively to the project master and nowhere else. A pairwise method, by contrast, may emit a dense clique among the referencing tables; downstream optimizers or agents then select among equivalent paths arbitrarily and incur the cost of every redundant edge both at discovery time and whenever the graph is placed in a prompt.

Non-LLM Join Discovery. Classical approaches decide joins from data statistics. Inclusion-dependency algorithms locate columns whose values are contained in a unique column [33]. Learned detectors score candidates with features such as uniqueness, containment, and name similarity [11, 30, 37]; Auto-BI [19] further combines a local classifier with global graph optimization. Joinable-table search treats each column as a domain–the set of its distinct values–and retrieves columns whose domains overlap most strongly with a query column. LSH Ensemble [39] established that set containment, rather than Jaccard similarity, is the appropriate overlap measure under skewed domain sizes and indexes it with MinHash sketches at the scale of hundreds of millions of domains. Subsequent systems (JOSIE [38], MATE [8], DeepJoin [7], Freyja [22]) extend the approach to exact overlap, multi-column keys, embeddings, and learned join quality.

These methods are computationally inexpensive and scale to large data lakes, yet they fail on enterprise data in four characteristic ways:

- **Accidental overlap produces false joins.** Every surrogate column whose values lie in $1..m$ is contained in every other surrogate whose values lie in $1..n$ ($n \geq m$). Status codes, years, and flags exhibit the same phenomenon. Value statistics alone cannot distinguish these overlaps from genuine references, flooding the graph with spurious edges. LakeBench [5] reports analogous failures for joinable-table search. In our databases, [P]% of inclusion dependencies with containment above 0.9 are not true joins.
- **Real joins appear imperfect.** Staging copies, deletions, and snapshots yield only partial containment; formatting differences

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(leading zeros, prefixes) can drive containment to zero. No single threshold works across an entire database.

- **Names carry little reliable semantics.** The same key appears under disparate names, while unrelated keys share generic names such as `ID`, `CODE`, or `DATA`. String similarity cannot resolve either case; the column descriptions and business context that would disambiguate them remain unused.
- **Learned models do not transfer.** Detectors and Auto-BI require labeled joins drawn from schemas similar to the target. Each business possesses its own naming conventions and source systems, and obtaining labels is expensive: LakeBench alone required more than 7 500 human hours. Moreover, joinable-table search returns a ranked list per query column rather than a decisive edge with direction.

LLM-based Join Discovery. Large language models address these shortcomings because they jointly interpret column names, descriptions, and sample values, and they encode knowledge of common business entities [24]. An LLM can recognize that `ENGAGEMENT` holds project codes while a surrogate `ID` does not reference a status table. Current practice therefore submits every pair of tables to an LLM, which decides whether the pair joins and returns the corresponding keys. The approach is accurate, yet its cost scales quadratically with the number of tables: a business of n tables requires $n(n-1)/2$ pair evaluations–approximately 500 000 for 1 000 tables and 32 million for 8 000 tables. Each evaluation itself comprises multiple LLM calls that carry schemas, descriptions, and samples, rendering a single business prohibitively expensive in both tokens and wall-clock time. The cost does not terminate after the initial construction: every newly arriving table must be evaluated against all existing tables, and earlier decisions are never reused. The vast majority of these calls are wasted; only a small fraction of table pairs actually join. Independent pairwise answers may also contradict one another and inject a clique of redundant edges into the graph. Redundant edges are not harmless: downstream tools that select a single path per table pair choose among equivalent paths arbitrarily, so a newly added shortcut can silently alter the tables and keys used by a query; every extra edge is paid for both at discovery time and whenever the graph is embedded in a prompt.

Hybrid Join Discovery. A natural response is to combine inexpensive signals with the LLM. Existing hybrids follow two strategies. The first narrows the search space before invoking the LLM. Schuyler [17] clusters tables into topics via self-supervised embeddings and observes that joins may then be sought only within and across clusters; our own production pipeline follows a similar idea by tagging tables and grouping them into concepts. Magneto [21] employs a small model to retrieve candidate column matches for subsequent LLM verification. Topics, however, are not key domains: a customer or project key routinely crosses topic boundaries, so restricting search to a cluster loses true joins while searching across clusters reintroduces a quadratic number of pairs.

The second strategy routes each pair to a cheap proxy or to the LLM. Semantic join operators in LOTUS [29] and Palimpzest [20], together with model cascades [4], accept or reject pairs according to embedding similarity and defer only inconclusive cases. SUPG [12] and BARGAIN [36] set deferral thresholds to guarantee target precision or recall relative to the LLM. Such cascades save little when embeddings fail to encode the join condition; on real data BARGAIN still defers roughly 80% of pairs [35]. Featurized-Decomposition Join (FDJ) [35] reduces cost by up to 10× by extracting features from each record with a linear LLM pass and then deciding joins via inexpensive comparisons on those features.

Table 1: Join key discovery over thousands of tables: non-LLM methods are cheap but decide from overlap and names, all-pairs LLM prompting calls the LLM per table pair, hybrids still judge pairs independently; KeyRing calls the LLM per key domain and keeps a target recall.

	Non-LLM		LLM	Hybrid	Hybrid
	Auto-BI [19]	**JOSIE** [38]	**All-pairs** prompting	**LOTUS** [29], **FDJ** [35]	**KeyRing** ours
Robust to accidental overlap	✗ learned syntactic features	✗ value overlap	✔	✔ if routed to LLM	✔ LLM checks each ring
Finds joins with partial or zero containment	✗	✗	✔	✗ if proxy drops them	✔ normalized formats, embeddings
Labeled data needed	✗ corpus of BI models	✔ none	✔ none	✔ none	✔ own LLM decisions
LLM calls grow with	n/a	n/a	✗ table pairs	✗ candidate pairs	✔ key domains
Recall guarantee	✗	✗ top-k by overlap	n/a (asks all pairs)	✔ per operator	✔ vs. all-pairs LLM
Returns key and direction	✔	✗	✔	✗ user predicate	✔ owner and members
Consistent, non-redundant graph	✔ arborescence	✗	✗ independent answers	✗	✔ star per key domain
Cost to link a new table	✗ re-solve global graph	✔ index lookup	✗ n pair prompts	✗ n pair operators	✔ affected rings only
F1; cost ([N] tables)	[F1]; no LLM	[F1]; no LLM	[F1]; [$, h]	[F1]; [$, h]	[F1]; [$, h]

These hybrids lower the per-pair cost yet inherit two fundamental limitations. First, any cheap filter inherits the failure modes of purely statistical methods: a surrogate overlap passes the filter and incurs an LLM call, while a genuine join with zero containment is discarded before the LLM ever sees it. Second, they evaluate a given join predicate over record pairs of two given tables. Join discovery poses a different question–which of thousands of tables join, and on which of their columns. Applied to table or column pairs, these operators judge every pair independently and never exploit the structural regularity that one side of a key is unique, the other side references it, and many tables share a single key domain. Consequently the number of LLM calls continues to grow with the number of candidate pairs.

Problem and Challenges. Given a database without declared keys and access to an LLM, our goal is to discover its join keys with as few LLM calls as possible while retaining a target recall of the all-pairs LLM baseline. Table 1 situates representative systems with respect to this objective. Because tables arrive continuously, the system must also link each new table at a cost that does not grow with the size of the business. Meeting these requirements is difficult for four reasons. First, the candidate space is quadratic and almost entirely empty, so pruning must eliminate nearly all pairs before any LLM call, yet every true join that is pruned is lost silently. Second, the inexpensive signals on which pruning relies are precisely those that fail for non-LLM methods. Third, pairwise

decisions ignore the structure of key domains and are therefore both redundant and potentially inconsistent. Fourth, an online system observes tables in arbitrary order: a late-arriving table may be the true owner of a key already referenced by many earlier tables, requiring earlier decisions to be revised while ensuring that the final result is independent of arrival order.

Our Insight. Enterprise joins are not distributed uniformly over table pairs. They concentrate on a modest number of *key domains*–customer, project, employee, invoice identifiers, and the like. Each domain comprises one owner column that is unique and many member columns that reference it. Knowledge of the key domains immediately yields the joins: every member joins with its owner. The number of key domains is typically orders of magnitude smaller than the number of table pairs. Consequently the LLM should verify key domains rather than pairs. This observation lifts the linear-work insight of feature extraction (e.g., FDJ) from records to schemas and extends the value domains of LSH Ensemble with ownership and semantics: a key domain is a set of columns that refer to the same business entity, together with a designated owner. It also partitions the work according to the complementary strengths of the two classes of methods. Non-LLM signals are reliable for uniqueness and for proposing high-recall candidates, but unreliable for deciding meaning; the LLM is reliable for meaning, yet too expensive to apply to every pair.

System Overview. This paper presents KeyRing[1], a hybrid system whose LLM cost scales with the number of key domains rather than the number of table pairs. KeyRing comprises four core components. The *Column Profiler* reads the data once and materializes sketches of each column's values, uniqueness, type, value pattern, normalized formats, and an embedding of its name and description; no subsequent step re-reads raw data. The *Ring Builder* generates candidates via containment and embedding indexes tuned for recall, prunes generic and type-incompatible columns, and groups the remaining columns into *rings*–one per candidate key domain–each with an elected owner. The *Budgeted Verifier* decides which rings and candidates require the LLM: a local model distilled from KeyRing 's own earlier LLM decisions accepts or rejects confident candidates; the LLM verifies each remaining ring once, in a batched prompt that presents the owner, its members, and any uncertain candidates, and removes accidental members such as surrogate overlaps. A cost-based optimizer selects thresholds and batch sizes so that KeyRing meets a target recall γ of the all-pairs LLM baseline with probability at least $1 - \delta$, accounting for the correlated errors that arise when a single verdict decides an entire ring. Confirmed rings propagate joins by transitivity without further LLM calls. The output is a star-shaped graph centered on each owner rather than a clique of redundant edges.

KeyRing operates in two modes over the same persistent state (profiles, indexes, rings, and the distilled model). In *bootstrap* mode it constructs the rings of an entire business from all of its tables. In *online* mode it links a single arriving table: it profiles only the new columns, probes the existing indexes, and assigns each key-like column to an existing ring or initiates a new one. The *Ring Maintainer* revises only the affected rings–re-electing a superior owner, merging rings that the new table connects, or splitting a ring that verification shows to mix distinct domains–and the Budgeted Verifier re-checks solely those rings. Each change updates the edges of a single ring; consequently the cost of an arrival grows with the size of the new table and of the rings it touches, not with the total number of tables. Bootstrap is simply the special case in which all tables arrive simultaneously; we prove that the final rings are independent of arrival order.

Contributions. Our primary contribution is KeyRing, a practical hybrid system for join-key discovery over thousands of tables that is more accurate than non-LLM methods and whose LLM cost scales with the number of key domains rather than the number of table pairs. The concrete technical contributions are:

- An analysis of the failure modes of non-LLM, LLM-based, and hybrid join discovery on enterprise data; a formalization of cost-bounded join-key discovery with a recall target relative to an LLM oracle; and a system architecture that solves the problem by discovering key domains instead of judging table pairs (Sections 2 and 3).
- A ring builder that converts a single pass of column profiling into candidate rings with elected owners, employing containment and embedding indexes together with format normalization, and that prunes generic columns that match too many owners–all without LLM calls (Section 4).
- A budgeted verifier that routes each candidate to a distilled local model or to one batched LLM prompt per ring, together with a cost-based optimizer whose thresholds guarantee a target recall of the all-pairs LLM baseline with prescribed confidence, while correctly accounting for correlated ring-level errors (Section 5).
- A ring maintainer for the online setting that identifies the minimal set of rings affected by an arriving table, re-verifies only those rings, and performs owner re-election, merges, and splits, so that arrival cost depends on the new table and the rings it touches rather than on the total number of tables, and the final result is independent of arrival order (Section 6).
- A comprehensive experimental evaluation on **[N]** production enterprise databases containing up to **[8K]** tables and on public benchmarks, comparing against non-LLM methods (inclusion-dependency discovery, Auto-BI, joinable-table search), all-pairs LLM prompting, and hybrid baselines (Section 7). Under the observed operating regime KeyRing improves join F1 over the strongest non-LLM baseline, reduces LLM calls, tokens, and end-to-end time by a factor of 2–5× relative to all-pairs prompting while retaining the large majority of its joins, and attains high precision on human-labeled joins. When tables are replayed in creation order, each arriving table is linked with substantially fewer LLM calls than pairwise verification and the final graph coincides with that of a full bootstrap run. Downstream analytic and Text-to-SQL workloads that consume the resulting compact graph exhibit fewer intermediate results and lower execution cost without altering query answers.

2 Background and Problem Formulation

In this section, we review the three categories of join discovery from Table 1: non-LLM, LLM-based, and hybrid. For each category, we describe how it decides joins and where it falls short on enterprise

[1] KeyRing holds all columns of one key domain together, analogous to keys on a ring. Code is available to reviewers at https://anonymous.4open.science/r/KeyRing.

databases. We then review how profiling metadata is collected and provided to LLMs, and formalize cost-bounded join key discovery.

2.1 Non-LLM Join Discovery

Non-LLM methods decide joins from data statistics and schema metadata. They fall into two groups: key and inclusion-dependency discovery, which decides joins inside one database, and joinable-table search, which ranks candidate columns for a query column in a data lake.

Key and Inclusion-Dependency Discovery. A unary *inclusion dependency* (IND) $A \subseteq B$ holds if every value of column A also appears in column B. If B is also unique, then A is a foreign-key candidate that references B. IND discovery algorithms check this condition for all column pairs, and scale to databases with very many tables by sorting and sharing value sets across checks [33]. Real data rarely satisfies exact INDs, so approximate INDs relax the condition to a containment threshold. Every IND is only a candidate, and most candidates are not foreign keys. Learned detectors therefore rank candidates with features, such as the uniqueness of B, the containment of A in B, the similarity of column names, and the distribution of values [30, 37]. HoPF [11] detects primary and foreign keys together, so that a column chosen as a primary key constrains which foreign keys may reference it. Auto-BI [19] goes one step further. It first trains a local classifier that predicts, for each column pair, whether it is an N:1 join. It then selects a global join graph that maximizes the combined classifier scores under structural constraints, a variant of the minimum-cost arborescence problem. The global step removes many locally plausible but inconsistent joins.

Joinable-Table Search. Data lake systems treat each column as a *domain*, the set of its distinct values, and rank the columns of a lake by their overlap with a query column. LSH Ensemble [39] uses set containment $|Q \cap X|/|Q|$ as the overlap measure. Unlike Jaccard similarity, containment does not penalize a large domain X for values outside Q, which matters because domain sizes follow a power-law distribution. LSH Ensemble indexes MinHash sketches of all domains in partitions of similar size, and answers containment queries over hundreds of millions of domains in seconds. JOSIE [38] returns the exact top-k columns by set overlap and chooses between reading posting lists and reading candidate sets with a cost model. MATE [8] extends the search to multi-column keys. DeepJoin [7] embeds columns with a pre-trained language model and searches them with an approximate nearest-neighbor index, which also finds joins with similar but not identical values. Freyja [22] learns a join quality metric from column profiles instead of raw values.

Limitations. Non-LLM methods are cheap, but they decide joins from syntactic evidence, and enterprise databases defeat this evidence in four ways. First, accidental overlap creates false joins. Surrogate keys that count from 1, status codes, years, and flags are contained in each other, and a unique surrogate column looks like a valid target for all of them. LakeBench [5] shows the same problem for joinable-table search: a column of street names overlaps a query column of last names, and JOSIE ranks it among the top results although the two columns are not joinable. Second, real joins look imperfect. Staging tables, snapshots, and deleted rows make containment partial, and formatting differences make exact overlap zero. On LakeBench queries whose joins have only fuzzy overlap, JOSIE reaches 0% top-10 accuracy and DeepJoin reaches 33% [5]. LakeBench concludes that no method is effective in all cases, because joinable columns must both mean the same thing and overlap in value [5]. Third, names do not resolve meaning. One key appears under different names, and different keys share generic names such as `ID`, `CODE`, or `DATA`. Column descriptions and business context would resolve these cases, but these methods do not read them. Fourth, learned models need labels. The detectors and Auto-BI learn from labeled joins, and labels for a new enterprise schema are expensive: LakeBench spent more than 7,500 human hours to label its queries [5]. Joinable-table search, in turn, returns a ranked list per query column, not a join decision with a key direction.

2.2 LLM-based Join Discovery

LLMs decide what columns mean. Foundation models match entities and schema elements across tables without task-specific training [24], and they read names, descriptions, and sample values together. This resolves the cases that defeat non-LLM methods: an LLM recognizes that `ENGAGEMENT` holds project codes, that a surrogate `ID` does not reference a status table, and that a street name is not a last name.

All-Pairs Prompting. Current practice in enterprise data platforms, including the production pipeline we study, discovers joins in three LLM steps. First, the LLM annotates every table: it tags its columns with semantic types and writes a description. Second, it tags each table with the *concepts* of a business data model, such as project or invoice, whose data the table holds. Third, it discovers joins pair by pair. For each pair of tables, one prompt removes the columns that cannot be keys, a second prompt selects the candidate key columns of one table, and one further prompt per candidate lists all columns of the other table with their descriptions and sample values and returns the matching columns. Warehouse queries then score the matches by value overlap and uniqueness and assemble a composite key greedily. The first two steps make one LLM call per table or per batch of tables, so their cost is linear in the number of tables. The third step dominates the cost.

Limitations. All-pairs prompting is accurate, but it faces four limitations. First, its cost grows quadratically. A database with n tables needs $n(n-1)/2$ pair evaluations, about 32M for 8K tables, and each evaluation makes $2+c$ LLM calls for c candidate columns, most of which carry a full schema and sample values. In our databases, only [Z]% of the pairs join, so almost all calls return "no join". Second, its calls are redundant. If k tables reference one key, the LLM answers $O(k^2)$ questions whose answers follow from k references to the owner of the key. Third, its answers are independent, so nothing makes them consistent. The LLM may confirm that A joins B and B joins C on the same key but reject that A joins C. It also cannot see global evidence that is obvious across pairs: in one of our databases, it linked a generic column named `DATA` to **[1,826]** other columns, one pair at a time. The resulting join graph contains cliques of redundant edges and false edges that are hard to remove afterwards. Fourth, it is incremental only in the trivial sense. It skips pairs it has already evaluated, so a new table costs n new pair evaluations, and every evaluation re-derives facts that earlier pairs already established, such as which column of a table holds customer identifiers.

2.3 Hybrid Join Discovery

Hybrid methods combine cheap methods with the LLM to cut the number of LLM calls. They either narrow the search space before the LLM, or route each candidate to a cheap proxy or to the LLM.

Narrowing the Search Space. Schuyler [17] clusters the tables of a relational database into topics. It fine-tunes a language model with a triplet loss on self-supervised signals from the schema, embeds each table, and clusters the embeddings, without labeled data. Its authors note that such clusters reduce the search for joinable and unionable tables, because integration can match groups before matching tables. The concept step of all-pairs prompting follows the same idea. Magneto [21] narrows schema matching between two tables: a small language model retrieves candidate column matches, and an LLM reranks them.

Routing Candidates. LLM-powered data processing systems, such as LOTUS [29] and Palimpzest [20], provide a *semantic join*: a join of two tables whose condition is a natural-language predicate evaluated by an LLM on each pair of records. To avoid evaluating the full cross product, they use a *model cascade* [4]. A cheap proxy, typically the cosine similarity of record embeddings, scores each pair. Pairs with a low score are rejected, pairs with a high score are accepted, and only pairs in between go to the LLM. SUPG [12] and BARGAIN [36] set the two thresholds from a sample of LLM labels, so that the output reaches a target precision or recall of the all-LLM result with probability at least $1 - \delta$. The savings depend on the proxy. When embeddings do not encode the join condition, most pairs fall between the thresholds: on real-world documents, BARGAIN still defers about 80% of pairs to the LLM [35]. Featurized-Decomposition Join (FDJ) [35] replaces the single proxy with a *featurized decomposition*. An LLM extracts features from each record in one linear pass, such as dates, locations, and names. A logical expression in conjunctive normal form over cheap comparisons of these features then prunes non-matching pairs, with thresholds set to keep statistical guarantees. FDJ reduces cost by up to 10× over BARGAIN [35].

Limitations. Hybrids reduce the cost per pair, but they fall short for join discovery in two ways. First, their cheap stage inherits the failures of non-LLM methods. Topical clusters are not key domains: a customer or project key is referenced from every topic, so a search restricted to clusters loses joins, and a search across clusters returns to a quadratic number of pairs. A proxy based on overlap or embeddings passes accidental overlaps to the LLM and drops joins whose values do not overlap before the LLM sees them. Second, semantic join operators answer a different question. They evaluate a *given* predicate over the records of *two given* tables. Join discovery must find which of thousands of tables join and on which columns. Applied to table or column pairs, a semantic join still judges every pair independently. It does not use the structure of join keys: the referenced side is unique, the referencing side is contained in it, and many tables share one key. FDJ shows that linear per-record extraction can replace quadratic per-pair decisions. KeyRing applies this principle to schemas, with key domains as the extracted structure.

2.4 Profiling Metadata for LLMs

All methods above consume column profiles, and LLM-based methods must also fit a description of each column into a prompt. We review how dependencies are discovered and stored, how unified data layers depend on keys, how LLMs annotate columns, and how metadata is selected for a prompt.

Dependency Discovery and Profile Stores. Data profiling computes metadata such as unique column combinations (UCCs), functional dependencies (FDs), and INDs [1]. Metanome [25] bundles discovery algorithms for these dependencies. HyFD [27] and HyUCC [28] combine approximation on samples with validation to find all minimal FDs and UCCs, and BINDER [26] finds all INDs by partitioning the value sets of all columns. The number of candidate dependencies grows exponentially with the number of columns, so exact discovery over a full warehouse is expensive. Approximate algorithms reduce this cost. FAIDA [16] tests IND candidates on HyperLogLog sketches and samples, and reports no false positives in its evaluation; Pyro [15] discovers approximate FDs and UCCs that tolerate errors in the data. DynFD [31] maintains FDs as the data changes, instead of discovering them again. Metacrate [14] stores them as a queryable database of data profiles. Wan and Han [34] argue that a valid dependency is not always a useful one: discovery should target the dependencies whose value for a downstream task exceeds the cost to discover and maintain them.

Unified Data Layers. Systems that integrate many sources consume the keys that KeyRing discovers. OmniTable [10] presents more than 35 PB of LLM training data, spread over hundreds of physical tables, as one logical wide table. A catalog maps logical columns to physical tables, and all sources, processing stages, and derived features are aligned on a global primary key. The system generates this key when a record is ingested. The design therefore assumes the alignment key, while enterprise databases do not provide one. A layer of this kind first needs the key domains and their owners, which are the output of KeyRing. OmniTable also recomputes incrementally: a new batch or a new feature triggers only the minimum closure of its uncomputed dependencies, and the catalog records the status and lineage of every result. The online mode of KeyRing (Section 6) applies the same principle to join discovery: an arriving table triggers verification of only the rings it affects, and the verdict cache keeps every answer the LLM has given.

LLM-based Profiling and Annotation. LLMs annotate columns with semantic types without task-specific training [9, 13], and write column descriptions for catalogs and downstream tasks [3]. Dependencies can also come from the LLM, not the data: LLMClean [2] lets an LLM derive ontological FDs from a table and uses them to detect errors. DBAutoDoc [23] documents databases without declared keys. It combines statistical analysis with iterative LLM refinement, which propagates corrections along the schema's dependency graph, and its statistical stage improves foreign-key detection by 23 F1 points over an LLM-only approach.

Selecting Metadata for LLM Prompts. A profile helps an LLM only if its relevant part fits into the prompt. Shkapenyuk et al. [32] summarize database profiles with an LLM and select schema elements for text-to-SQL with a recall-oriented schema linking algorithm. On BIRD with GPT-4o, profile-based metadata raises

execution accuracy from 49.8% to 61.2%, and schema linking raises it to 63.2% [32]. REVEAL [6] annotates a column with a compact subset of the other columns of its table, selected for relevance and diversity, instead of the whole table, and improves column type and column property annotation.

Limitations. These works either collect dependencies or select context, but not both for one task. Profiling systems discover all valid dependencies of a type and leave their use to the application. Context selection methods choose columns or schema elements, not dependencies. To our knowledge, no method decides which dependencies to discover, and which to show the LLM, for a given column and task under a token budget. Join discovery needs exactly this decision. An IND into a unique column suggests a reference, the description of the referenced key tells the LLM what the referencing column means, and most other dependencies do not affect the decision. KeyRing makes this selection with key domains: a ring prompt contains the owner of a key domain and its candidate members, together with the profile evidence that connects them.

2.5 Problem Formulation

Let $\mathcal{D}$ be the database of one business, with tables $\mathcal{T} = \{T_1, \ldots, T_n\}$, and let C be the set of all their columns. A business typically has 50 to 8K tables. Businesses are independent: every definition below is relative to one $\mathcal{D}$, and joins across businesses are out of scope. Each column $c \in C$ has a name, an optional LLM annotation (semantic type and description), and a set of values $V(c)$. We write $u(c) = |\text{distinct}(V(c))|/|V(c)|$ for its uniqueness, and $\text{cont}(a, b) = |V(a) \cap V(b)|/|V(a)|$ for the containment of a in b.

Definition 2.1 (Join Key). A *join key* $a \to b$ is an ordered pair of columns $a, b \in C$ of different tables, where b identifies a business entity and a refers to the same entity. We call b the *referenced* column and a the *referencing* column.

The definition is semantic on purpose. Uniqueness and containment are evidence for a join key, but neither is necessary nor sufficient on enterprise data, as Section 2.1 shows. We therefore define the ground truth by an oracle.

Definition 2.2 (LLM Oracle). An *oracle* O is an LLM with a fixed prompt that, given two tables, returns the set of join keys between them. The oracle join set $J^* = \bigcup_{i<j} O(T_i, T_j)$ is the result of all-pairs prompting. Computing J^* costs $n(n-1)/2$ oracle calls.

Using the oracle as the reference makes the goal precise: a cheaper method should return what all-pairs prompting would return, at a fraction of its cost. It also matches how such systems are evaluated in practice, where the all-LLM result is the reference for cascades [12, 35, 36]. We additionally report precision and recall against human-labeled joins on a sample (Section 7).

Definition 2.3 (Key Domain and Ring). A *key domain* is a business entity that columns refer to, such as a customer or a project. A *ring* $R = (o_R, M_R)$ represents one key domain by an *owner* column $o_R \in C$ that identifies the entity, and a set of *member* columns $M_R \subseteq C \setminus \{o_R\}$ that refer to it. A ring induces the join keys $J(R) = \{m \to o_R \mid m \in M_R\}$. A set of rings $\mathcal{R}$ induces the join graph $G(\mathcal{R})$ with edges $\bigcup_{R \in \mathcal{R}} J(R)$.

Two members of the same ring also join with each other, through their shared owner. $G(\mathcal{R})$ does not store these joins as edges, because they follow by transitivity. So a key referenced by k columns produces k edges in $G(\mathcal{R})$, a star around its owner, instead of the $O(k^2)$ edges of a clique.

Cost Model. Let $\text{cost}(P)$ be the cost of an LLM prompt P, measured in tokens and converted to dollars by the price of the model. A method $\mathcal{A}$ issues a sequence of prompts $P_1, \ldots, P_m$ and returns a join set $\hat{J}$. Its LLM cost is $\text{cost}(\mathcal{A}) = \sum_{i=1}^{m} \text{cost}(P_i)$. We also report its number of LLM calls m and its end-to-end time, including profiling and all non-LLM steps. The recall of $\hat{J}$ with respect to the oracle is $\text{rec}(\hat{J}) = |\hat{J} \cap J^*|/|J^*|$, where a member-to-member join implied by a ring counts as found.

Optimization Objective. Given $\mathcal{D}$, an oracle O, a recall target $\gamma \in (0, 1]$, and a confidence level $1 - \delta$, find a set of rings $\mathcal{R}$, and thereby a join set $\hat{J} = G(\mathcal{R})$, that minimizes the LLM cost:

$$\min_{\mathcal{A}} \ \text{cost}(\mathcal{A}) \quad \text{s.t.} \quad \Pr\left[\text{rec}(\hat{J}) \geq \gamma\right] \geq 1 - \delta, \tag{1}$$

subject to five requirements.

- *(R1) Recall-guaranteed:* $\hat{J}$ keeps at least a fraction γ of the oracle joins with probability at least $1 - \delta$, where the probability is over the random samples the method draws.
- *(R2) Domain-proportional:* the number of LLM calls grows with the number of key domains and uncertain candidates, not with the number of table pairs.
- *(R3) Label-free:* the method needs no labeled joins and no corpus of similar schemas. It may learn only from the oracle answers it pays for.
- *(R4) Consistent:* $\hat{J}$ is induced by rings, so every referencing column points to the owner of its key domain, and joins implied by transitivity are not stored as separate edges.
- *(R5) Online:* when a table arrives, the method updates $\hat{J}$ at a cost that grows with the size of the new table and of the rings it affects, not with n, and the final $\hat{J}$ does not depend on the order in which tables arrive.

A precision constraint can be added in the same form; we report precision for all methods.

Online Setting. Tables arrive over time. Let $T_1, T_2, \ldots$ be the order of arrival, $\mathcal{D}_t = \{T_1, \ldots, T_t\}$ the business after t arrivals, and J_t^* the oracle join set of $\mathcal{D}_t$. On the arrival of T_{t+1}, a method receives its columns and their profiles and annotations, and returns the updated join set $\hat{J}_{t+1}$. It may add edges incident to T_{t+1}, and it may also revise earlier edges, for example when T_{t+1} holds a better owner for an existing ring. Requirement R1 must hold after every arrival, with J_t^* as the reference, and the objective is the total LLM cost over the whole sequence. The batch problem above is the special case of a single arrival that contains all tables.

In Table 1, non-LLM methods meet R2 and R4 at best but have no oracle-level semantics, and Auto-BI violates R3. All-pairs prompting is the oracle itself and violates R2, R4, and R5, because each arrival costs n new pair evaluations. Hybrid semantic joins meet R1 and R3 for a given pair of tables, but applied to join discovery they violate R2, R4, and R5. Joinable-table search meets the cost part of R5, because a new column is a single index lookup, but it returns ranked candidates rather than joins.

3 The KeyRing System Architecture

KeyRing has three core components that run as a pipeline, and a fourth, the Ring Maintainer, that updates their result when a table arrives. First, the *Column Profiler* reads the data once and summarizes every column. Second, the *Ring Builder* turns these summaries into candidate key domains, called rings, without any LLM call. Third, the *Budgeted Verifier* decides which candidates need the LLM, verifies each ring with one batched prompt, and returns the join graph. Only the third component calls the LLM. Figure 1 shows the three core components along the top, the Ring Maintainer and the path of an arriving table along the bottom, and the data that flows between them. Grey cards are components that the production pipeline already has; KeyRing reuses them.

Two Modes. The components keep their state between runs: the profiles, the two candidate indexes, the rings with their owners, the distilled model and its thresholds, and the join graph. KeyRing uses this state in two modes. In *bootstrap* mode, it runs the pipeline over all tables of a business, when the business is onboarded or rebuilt. In *online* mode, it links one arriving table. The profiler summarizes only the new columns, the Ring Builder looks them up in the existing indexes instead of rebuilding the rings, a fourth component, the *Ring Maintainer*, applies the resulting changes to the affected rings, and the Budgeted Verifier checks only those rings. Both modes share the same candidate generation, scoring, and verification, so a ring confirmed in one mode is valid in the other.

Design Principles. Three principles shape KeyRing, each serving requirements from Section 2.5. First, KeyRing decides key domains, not table pairs. The LLM verifies a ring once, and the joins of all its members follow from that answer, so the number of LLM calls grows with the number of key domains (R2), and the output is a star around each owner (R4). Second, KeyRing uses each signal for what it is reliable at. Uniqueness, containment, and embeddings are reliable for proposing candidates, but not for deciding what a column means. The Ring Builder therefore tunes them for recall, because a join it drops cannot be recovered later, and leaves meaning to the LLM. Third, KeyRing pays for the LLM only where its answer changes the outcome, and it reuses every answer it pays for. A local model, trained only on KeyRing's own LLM answers, decides confident candidates (R3), and a cost-based optimizer sets its thresholds so that the result meets the recall target (R1).

3.1 Column Profiler

The Column Profiler makes one pass over the data and computes a profile for each column $c \in C$. The profile has four parts, shown on the left of Figure 1. First, *value sketches*: a MinHash sketch of the distinct values for containment estimates [39], and a HyperLogLog sketch for the number of distinct values. Second, *statistics*: the uniqueness $u(c)$, the null ratio, the data type, and a value pattern, such as "three letters, a dash, and five digits". Third, *normalized formats*: the profiler strips leading zeros, prefixes, and case differences, and sketches the normalized values as well, so that a join with zero exact overlap can still show containment. Fourth, an *embedding* of the column name together with its LLM annotation, if the annotation step of the current pipeline (Section 2.2) has already produced one. The statistics and the LLM annotation already exist in the production pipeline; the sketches, normalized formats, and embeddings are new. The cost of profiling is linear in the size of the data, and no later step reads raw data again. In online mode, the profiler runs only on the columns of the arriving table.

3.2 Ring Builder

The Ring Builder turns profiles into rings in four steps, shown in the middle of Figure 1. First, it selects *key candidates*: columns with uniqueness $u(c) \geq \tau_u$ and few nulls, which can own a key domain, and small column combinations that are unique together, which can own a composite key. Second, it generates *candidate references* for every column with two indexes over the key candidates: a containment index on the value sketches [39], and an approximate nearest-neighbor index on the embeddings. The first index finds references with overlapping values, and the second finds references whose values differ in format but whose names and descriptions match. Third, it *scopes* and *prunes* the candidates. The scope is one business, and within it the concept tags of the existing pipeline rank candidates, but they do not restrict them: a reference may cross concepts and source systems, because a customer or project key does. Pruning removes candidates that cannot be keys: columns whose type is incompatible with the owner, and generic columns, such as `DATA` or small status codes, that match a large fraction of all key candidates. Fourth, it *forms rings*. Each key candidate with at least one remaining reference starts a ring, and each referencing column joins the ring of its best-scoring owner. When two owners reference each other, such as a master table and its staging copy, the Ring Builder merges their rings and elects the owner with the larger domain. The output is a set of candidate rings, each with an owner, its members, and a score for each member. Section 4 describes these steps in detail.

3.3 Budgeted Verifier

The Budgeted Verifier turns candidate rings into confirmed rings, as shown on the right of Figure 1. First, *calibration* draws a random sample of candidates and asks the LLM about them. From these answers, the *cost-based optimizer* sets two thresholds on the score of the distilled model, so that the result keeps a target recall γ of the oracle with probability at least $1 - \delta$, in the style of SUPG and BARGAIN [12, 36]. It also chooses how many candidates to place in one prompt. Second, the *distilled model* scores every remaining candidate from its profile features. It accepts candidates above the upper threshold and rejects candidates below the lower threshold. Third, the *ring prompt* verifies each ring that still has uncertain members. One prompt contains the owner, the accepted members, and the uncertain candidates of a ring, and the LLM confirms the owner and returns the members that refer to it. Every LLM answer becomes a label, so the distilled model improves while the verifier runs, and it is stored in a *verdict cache* keyed by the owner and the member. The cache matters most in online mode: when an arrival changes a ring, the verifier asks the LLM only about members it has no verdict for. Fourth, the *SQL join check* of the existing pipeline measures the exact containment of each accepted member in its owner on the warehouse, so that a join accepted from sketches alone is confirmed on the full data. Fifth, *transitive propagation* derives the remaining joins: every confirmed member joins its owner, and

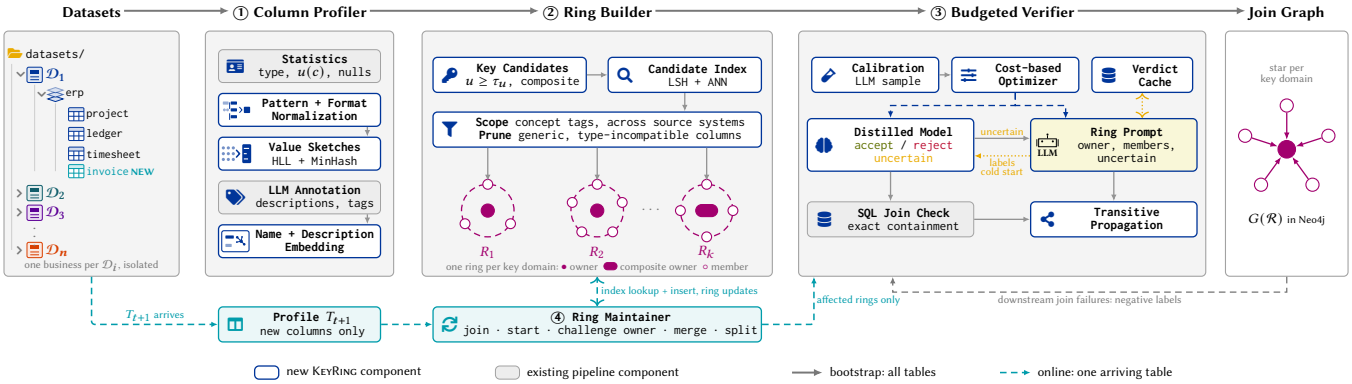


Figure 1: KeyRing architecture: the Column Profiler summarizes every column in one pass without the LLM; the Ring Builder groups candidate key columns into rings, one per key domain, each with an owner; the Budgeted Verifier accepts or rejects confident candidates with a distilled model, verifies each ring with one batched LLM prompt, and propagates joins by transitivity, so that the join graph keeps a target recall of the all-pairs LLM baseline. In online mode (dashed teal), an arriving table T_{t+1} is profiled alone, and the Ring Maintainer looks its columns up in the candidate index, updates the affected rings, and sends only those rings to the verifier. Each business $\mathcal{D}_i$ is processed in isolation.

two members of the same ring join through it. The output is the join graph $G(\mathcal{R})$ of Section 2.5, which the production pipeline stores in a graph database. Joins that fail downstream, for example a join that multiplies the rows of a master table, return to the verifier as negative labels. Section 5 describes the optimizer and its guarantee.

3.4 Ring Maintainer

The Ring Maintainer keeps the rings correct as tables arrive. For each key-like column of the arriving table, the index lookup returns one of three outcomes. First, the column *joins* an existing ring as a member, and the maintainer adds one edge to the ring's owner. Second, the column matches no ring but is a key candidate, and it *starts* a new ring that later arrivals can join. Third, the column *challenges* the owner of a ring: it is unique, and the current owner and its members are contained in it, as when the true customer master arrives after many tables that reference customers. The maintainer then elects the new owner and re-points the edges of that ring, which changes $|M_R|$ edges and no other ring. An arrival can also connect two rings, for example a staging copy that overlaps both a master and its older export, and the maintainer merges them. When the verifier rejects part of a ring, the maintainer splits it. Every change touches only the rings the new columns map to, so the cost of an arrival is independent of the number of tables. The verifier treats each changed ring as uncertain and checks it with one ring prompt, together with the uncertain candidates of the new table. Section 6 gives the update rules and shows that the final rings do not depend on the order of arrival.

Example 3.1 (Running Example). In the services firm of Section 1, the profiler computes the profile of the project master's `PROJECT_CODE`, which is unique, and of the k columns that reference it. Normalization removes the leading zeros of the padded export, so its codes are contained in the master again. The containment index proposes `PRJ_ID` and the padded column as references, and the embedding index proposes `ENGAGEMENT`, whose values carry a prefix. The Ring Builder prunes `DATA`, which matches [X]% of all key candidates, and merges the staging copy of the master into the same ring. The distilled model accepts the confident members and rejects the surrogate `ID` columns, whose values are contained in the codes by accident. The LLM then verifies the ring with a single prompt that lists the uncertain members, instead of answering $\binom{k+1}{2}$ pairwise prompts.

4 Column Profiling and Ring Building

[Key candidate selection, the two candidate indexes, pruning of generic columns, ring formation and owner election, complexity.]

5 Budgeted Verification

[Distilled model, threshold selection with recall guarantee, ring prompts and batching, transitive propagation, cost analysis.]

6 Online Ring Maintenance

[Arrival algorithm (profile, index lookup, join/start/challenge), owner re-election, ring merge and split, keeping the recall guarantee after every arrival, order independence (bootstrap = one arrival of all tables), cost per arrival.]

7 Experiments

[Datasets, baselines (non-LLM, all-pairs LLM, hybrid), cost and quality results.] [Online experiments: replay each business's tables in creation order; LLM calls, tokens, and latency per arrival vs. pairwise prompting (new table × all tables) and a bootstrap rerun; recall after each arrival; graph after the last arrival vs. a single bootstrap run; random arrival orders for order independence.] [Redundant edges downstream: number of distinct shortest join paths per table pair, how often a shortcut edge changes the chosen path, and prompt tokens of the full vs. the ring graph.]

8 Conclusion

[Conclusion.]

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